



PSC201 Short Notes

International Relations (Mid Term) (Virtual University of Pakistan)



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Lesson 1**What is International Relations and what is its relevance?****Definitions of IR**

International Relations (IR) encompasses the interactions between nation-states. Originally coined by Jeremy Bentham in the 18th century, IR initially focused solely on official relations between countries. However, it has evolved to include all interactions, whether government-sponsored or not, among members of separate societies. This includes foreign policies, political processes, international trade, and civil society interactions. In essence, IR examines how countries relate to each other and why it matters in our increasingly interconnected world.

Ingredients of IR

International Relations (IR) studies the organization and dynamics of global politics. It examines the political, social, and economic aspects of international life. IR explores national power, including its limitations and methods of control. Additionally, it analyzes how countries promote their interests through foreign policies. Historical contexts are also crucial for understanding current events in IR.

International Politics vs. International Relations

International Relations (IR) is broader than international politics. While international politics looks at various political styles, IR encompasses all global relations, including socio-cultural and economic aspects. It studies the full scope of interactions in the global community.

League of Nations

WWI resulted in 20 million deaths in four years, prompting a global consensus on the need for collective security and preventing war. The League of Nations was formed, focusing on public voting, the rule of law, disarmament, and diplomatic foreign policies. However, it failed to prevent WWII and dissolved in 1946. The United Nations took over its responsibilities and continues its work today.

Foreign Policy & Diplomacy

Foreign policies are shaped by various factors and theories on how to pursue a state's interests in dealings with others. Diplomacy deals with the tools and structures of diplomacy and how interactions with international actors evolve.

International Institutions

International institutions, such as NGOs and the UN system, offer platforms for states and other actors to engage globally. Regional groupings like the EU, NATO, ASEAN, and SAARC serve various functions as well.

LESSON 02**Approaches to International Relations: Theories in IR (Continued from Lecture 1)****Political Realism**

Political Realism holds that nation-states are primarily motivated by self-interest, often disguised as moral concerns. It emphasizes preserving political autonomy and territorial integrity. National interests are defined in terms of power, encompassing military, economic, political, diplomatic, and cultural resources. Realists see the international system as anarchical, with states relying on their own resources to secure interests. Realism rejects the idea of a higher authority over nation-states and views politics rationally, not morally. Conflict and competition are seen as inevitable due to incompatible goals, with decision-makers competing for security, status, and wealth in the absence of enforceable international rules. Famous realists include Hans Morgenthau and Henry Kissinger.

Tenets of Liberalism

Liberalism emphasizes international cooperation and involves various actors like states, multinational corporations (MNCs), and NGOs. These actors are driven by economic, social, and military goals and use diverse means to achieve them. Liberals believe that despite the anarchic nature of the international system, cooperation is possible due to potential benefits like economic, technological, and cultural gains. They highlight the importance of norms and rules of international law and trade in mitigating conflicts. Liberals advocate for governance without government and oppose government interference in economic processes.

Idealism

Idealists regard realism as a passing phase of history. They envision a world free of power politics and violence. Idealists have great faith in international organizations and universal education in achieving this end. But crushing totalitarianism with democratic principles is not easy. Idealism can be frustrating given the lingering turmoil evident in the world. Rousseau, Kant and Woodrow Wilson were famous idealists.

LESSON 03

Approaches to International Relations (Continued from Lectures 1 and 2)**Traditional Approach**

The traditional approach to international relations focuses on understanding government behavior through concepts like balance of power, national interest, and diplomacy. Traditionalists aim to explain and manage conflicts between states that often lead to war. They prioritize disciplines like diplomatic history, international law, and philosophy to gain insights. Unlike behaviorist approaches that rely heavily on scientific methods like hypothesis testing and statistical analysis, traditionalists view international relations as a subset of history and political science. Overall, they emphasize studying observable actions of governments to decipher their motives and interactions.

Scientific Approach

The scientific approach in international relations challenges traditional views by emphasizing complexity and rejecting IR as a sub-discipline of political science. It constructs conceptual frameworks and models, analyzing data to test hypotheses. This method relies on statistical analysis, correlating variables like war incidence and alliance policies. While bringing rigor, it struggles with data collection and defining units of analysis, such as terrorism.

Behavioural Approach

The behavioral approach to international relations emerged in the 1960s and 70s, highlighting the importance of values in studying politics. Drawing from socio-anthropological and psychological perspectives, it seeks to understand the motives behind state and international actor behavior. This approach sheds light on cross-cultural interactions, the impact of propaganda, and stereotypes on conflicts and international relations. However, it's challenging to analyze state behavior due to the complexity of multiple individuals and authorities involved. Behaviorists employ scientific methods, focusing on observable actions rather than abstract concepts like "mind" or "consciousness." They emphasize quantifying variables whenever possible in their analysis.

Post-Behaviouralist Approach

In the 1980s, an attempt was made to combine normative and empirical approaches to study IR. This approach can be used to test the validity of the idealists' hypothesis to see if democratic or authoritarian states are more likely to be engaged in internal conflicts.

Systems Approach

The systems approach in international relations emphasizes the intricate interactions within and between states, maintaining a scientific perspective post-behavioralism. It focuses on interconnected international systems, ranging from small to large, such as the UN, individual nations, ethnic groups, political parties, and multinational corporations. This approach helps to grasp the complexity of international relations by examining how these systems interact and influence one another.

Relevant Vocabulary

1. **Hypothesis:** conclusion made on examination of evidence
2. **Correlations:** similarities
3. **Aggregate:** combined
4. **Variables:** factors which are subject to change in different circumstances
5. **Sub-discipline:** discipline within a broader discipline

LESSON 04

THE NATION-STATE SYSTEM

Background and Approaches

A nation refers to a group sharing ethnic and cultural identity, while a state is a political entity governing a territory and its people. Nations foster emotional bonds, while states provide legal and political frameworks for citizens. The concept of a nation-state signifies the merging of cultural and political boundaries under centralized governance. Nation-states are central players in international relations.

Nation and Government

While governments come and go, a state has more permanence. Students and scholars of international relations can depend upon the continued existence of a state as a viable political entity.

Historical Background

The Treaty of Westphalia in 1648 established the modern nation-state by introducing the concepts of internal and external sovereignty. This treaty granted independence to England, Spain, and France from the Holy Roman Empire's dominance. It also marked the beginning of modern diplomacy and shifted conflicts from religious to state-based issues. Additionally, the treaty ended the notion of the Holy Roman Empire's universal authority, affirming the nation-state as the highest level of government. Scholars like Machiavelli, Bodin, and Grotius supported state authority, advocating for secular governance separate from papal influence.

Approaches to studying international relations include:

1. **Objective (Attributive) Approach:** Focuses on measurable attributes like language, race, and religion to understand nationalism and the nation-state.
2. **Subjective (Emotional) Approach:** Considers nationalism and the nation-state as emotional and ideological bonds that unite people, irrespective of ethnic backgrounds.
3. **Eclectic (Synthetic) Approach:** Combines subjective and objective elements, emphasizing interethnic interaction and education to explain the formation of a common identity.

Further Evolution of Nation-State

Nation-states evolved due to factors like the emergence of representative government, the industrial revolution, population growth, independence movements in developing countries, economic expansion, and the establishment of multilateral organizations.

Relevant Vocabulary

- Population explosion: uncontrolled growth of population
- Sovereignty: dominion, rule or independence
- Multilateral initiatives: joint efforts often involving different nations and with many objectives
- Linguistic: concerning language
- Quantifiable: scientific or verifiable

LESSON 5

THE NATION STATE SYSTEM: BASIC FEATURES OF A NATION-STATE
(Continued from Lecture 4)***Sovereignty***

Sovereignty, tied to nation-states, emerged in 16th century France amid state-church conflicts. It's been defined by various theorists: Hobbes emphasized absolute power, Austin focused on legal aspects, and modern views highlight popular sovereignty, shifting power from monarchs to people. While crucial, sovereignty must adapt to changing inter-state dynamics to remain relevant.

Nationalism

Nationalism prioritizes the nation above all else. Governments use media and education to promote nationalistic values and foreign policy goals.

It can override moral and religious beliefs (like in the Soviet Union) or blend with them (as seen in Israel). Hans Morgenthau noted a shift to universalistic nationalism, where one state may impose its standards on others.

Nationalism fosters a sense of common identity, emphasizing the preservation and glory of the nation. It's often linked to political legitimacy based on consent or other factors.

Modern nationalism involves ethnic or religious politics, with extremes like national socialism or separatism drawing attention.

National Power

National power is measured by tangible and intangible factors. Tangible aspects include economic output, size, population, and military strength. Intangible factors include leadership, ideology, morale, and diplomatic skills.

Power ensures a state's security and survival. It's both a goal and a method to achieve that goal.

Ingredients of National Power

- **Force:** the explicit threat or use of military, economic, nuclear and other instruments of coercion by one state against another.
- **Influence:** using instruments of persuasion by one state to alter or maintain the behavior of another state.
- **Authority:** voluntary compliance with directives of a state by other states out of respect, solidarity, or in recognition of expertise.

Relevant Vocabulary

- **Derived:** obtained or extracted from
- **Legitimacy:** legality or justification
- **Compliance:** following and/or accepting instructions
- **Directives:** orders
- **Solidarity:** united stance
- **Explicit:** obvious or visible
- **Intangible:** not visible or very evident
- **Gauged:** ascertained or measured

LESSON 06

NATIONAL INTEREST

Origins of National Interest

The term "national interest" originates from Latin, meaning something that concerns or makes a difference to a nation. Charles Beard's 1930s book was the first significant work on the subject. In international relations, it refers to the underlying reasons guiding a state's actions to safeguard its values amid global threats.

Leaders, accountable to their people and operating in uncertain circumstances, often prioritize their own nation's interests over others'.

National interest is about pursuing outcomes that benefit the nation, sometimes seen as self-centeredness or prioritizing the nation's well-being. It's closely tied to the values held by a society.

What does Nation Interest include?

National interest encompasses different aspects according to scholars. Some prioritize self-preservation, including territorial integrity, political independence, and core governmental institutions. Others emphasize self-sufficiency, prestige, and expansion. Charles Beard highlighted territory and commerce as key elements.

Morgenthau suggests that a nation's interests should align with its capabilities, cautioning against ambitions beyond capacity, as seen with Britain and France post-WWII.

Criteria for defining national interest vary:

1. **Ideological criteria:** if one country's ideology is liberal-democratic, it will make policies supporting democratic governments and movements and oppose totalitarian ones.
2. **Moral and legal criteria:** the imperative to act honestly and make decisions in accordance with international laws.
3. **Pragmatic criteria:** unemotional, calculated decisions to deal with on ground realities.
4. **Bureaucratic criteria:** each organization tends to exaggerate its specific funding request and to argue in the name of the national interest rather than its own interest.
5. **Partisan criteria:** to equate the success of one's own political party with an entire nation's success.
6. **Racial criteria:** national interest defined in terms of interest of an ethnic or racial minority or majority.
7. **Class-status criteria:** a particular class will defend its interests while defining national interest.
8. **Foreign-dependency criteria:** protector states define policy obligations of their dependencies.

Relevant Vocabulary

- **Imperative:** vital or of utmost importance
- **Synonymous:** identical, a different term with the same meaning
- **Notion:** idea
- **Self-sufficiency:** self-reliance or independence
- **Aggrandizement:** enhancement or exaggeration
- **Obligations:** duties or responsibilities
- **Dependency:** being dependent or reliant
- **Ground realities:** actual circumstances

LESSON 08

BALANCE OF POWER (BOP)**Definitions of BoP**

The balance of power among nations prevents any single nation from dominating others. It's determined by assessing each nation's strength, shaping their interactions accordingly.

BoP from a historical perspective

From 1648 to 1789, the balance of power thrived in Europe, guiding foreign policy decisions. It was used against France in the 17th century and shaped British diplomacy in the 18th and 19th centuries.

The Concert of Europe (1815-1870) exemplified major powers striving for balance, but the rise of Germany led to a bipolar world and eventually World Wars.

Post-World War II, the US and USSR dominated, challenging traditional balance of power dynamics. In the 1960s, balance of power regained importance with the emergence of China, the Third World, and other players.

Following the USSR's collapse in 1991, the US became the dominant superpower.

Some BoP Techniques

- Alliances (NATO) and Counter-Alliances (WARSAW Pact)
- Armament (arms race in the Subcontinent spurred by need to maintain BoP) and
- Disarmament (Nuclear Non-Proliferation Treaty)
- Intervention (Soviets and US incursion into Afghanistan) and Non-Intervention (France and Britain did not interfere in Spanish civil war of 1936)

Kinds of BoP

Simple or Complex: Simple balance of power requires equal strength between powers, but in more complex situations, competing powers can find balance through additional means.

General or Particular: General balance of power lacks a dominant power, while particular balance of power can imply regional dominance.

Subjective or Objective: Subjective balance of power relies on appearances and is fragile, while objective balance of power based on actual capabilities is more stable.

Relevant Vocabulary

- **Assessment:** estimation based on analysis
- **Fortuitous:** unexpected or chance
- **Capability:** capacity or the ability to achieve or do something
- **Preponderance:** prevalence or hold Fragile: subject to change, unstable Intervention: intrusion or interference
- **Alliance:** grouping or association to serve a specific purpose

LESSON 09**BALANCE OF POWER (CONTINUED)****How is Power Balanced?**

Balancing threats, not just power, involves considering distance, interdependence, and ideology. External balancing through alliances, like NATO and the Warsaw Pact during the Cold War, requires trust but can lead to dependency. Internal balancing builds up a state's capacity, seen in the US-Soviet arms race during the Cold War.

Polarization in conflicts leads neutral parties to take sides, pushing individuals to extreme positions opposed to each other. Trust diminishes, stereotypes emerge, and negotiation becomes difficult.

Factors in polarization include:

- a) Tightness of poles: Are all states aligned with one side or the other?
- b) Discreteness of poles: How much interaction occurs between states on each side?
- c) Level of animosity: To what extent is there animosity between opposing sides?

BOP and War

In a uni-polar system where one big power rules, big wars happen less because that power can stop others from preparing for war. But when the balance changes and a new powerful country rises up, there's a bigger chance of war. Both sides might think they can win, so they fight.

Morton Kaplan's Rules of BoP

1. All states act to increase capabilities but prefer to negotiate rather than fight.
2. All states fight rather than pass up an opportunity to increase their capabilities.
3. All states stop fighting rather than eliminate an essential state.
4. All states act to oppose any coalition or single state which tends to assume a position of dominance within the system
5. All states act to constrain states who subscribe to supranational organizing principles
6. All states permit defeated or constrained states to re-enter the system as potential partners

BoP in the Modern World

In today's world, the rise of superpowers has made it hard to negotiate individual balance of power. The growing gap between states also makes it tough to keep balance. Plus, with different ideologies, it's not easy to switch sides in a world with many powers.

Functions of BoP

Balance of power stops one empire from taking over the world. It brings peace when there's no strong collective security. It's especially helpful for smaller states when big powers balance each other out.

Balancing Power for Secondary States

Secondary states choose to join the weaker side to avoid being threatened by the stronger side. They feel safer and more valued among weaker allies because they're not dominated by stronger ones.

Criticism of Balance of Power:

- Balance of power prioritizes power over peace, leading to conflict.
- War, not peace, is seen as the best way to maintain balance.
- It has resulted in the absorption and division of smaller states, like Poland in 1772.

- States can increase their power through weapons and development, making it hard to maintain balance.
- Switching sides is tough due to political, economic, and cultural ties.

Relevant Vocabulary

- Mechanism: device, apparatus, or system
- Polarization: division or diversion
- Acquire: to obtain or to get
- Partition: breaking up or division
- Static: the same, or unchanging

LESSON 10**DIPLOMACY****Definitions of Diplomacy**

Diplomacy is like the art of negotiation and managing relationships between countries. Its goal is to get the most benefit for a country while avoiding big problems like war.

There are two main types of diplomacy. The first is bilateral, which means dealing with issues between two countries. This is what most embassies focus on. The second type is multilateral, where many countries come together to solve problems or make agreements.

Multilateral diplomacy became a big deal after the Congress of Vienna in the 1800s. Nowadays, many important agreements involving trade, arms control, and the environment are made through multilateral diplomacy. The United Nations is a key player in this kind of diplomacy.

Diplomacy from a Historical Perspective

Diplomacy has been around for a long time, even back when cities were just starting to form around 5th century BC. Initially, diplomats were sent out only for specific tasks and would return home right after finishing their job.

These early diplomats were often important people, like relatives of rulers, chosen to make negotiations seem more official. Over time, diplomats evolved from just delivering messages to actually negotiating agreements.

During the Middle Ages, diplomacy didn't change much. Diplomats mainly kept records and didn't do a lot of negotiating.

The first official foreign mission, which was more about the court than the people, was established in Genoa in the late Middle Ages.

After the American and French revolutions, diplomacy became less about aristocrats and more about regular people having a say. The Congress of Vienna in 1815 set some rules for how diplomats should be treated and organized.

How Diplomacy Functions

Diplomacy works through a system of foreign officers, embassies, consulates, and special missions all over the world. While it mainly involves two countries talking to each other, it's also becoming more common for multiple countries to be involved because of organizations at the international and regional levels.

Diplomacy & Foreign Policy: What's the Difference?

Diplomacy is the method and process by which foreign policy is pursued but it is not a policy onto itself. Outcome of diplomatic negotiations can effect foreign policy options.

Traditional Versus Modern Diplomacy

Traditional diplomacy viewed major European powers as the main peacekeepers, while colonies were seen as less important. It was professional but secretive, with only a small group of diplomats involved.

Modern diplomacy is more open and democratic, involving give-and-take negotiations where diplomats can't always predict the outcome. Multilateralism, where many countries work together, is more common now, often involving conferences or summits with preparation by diplomats beforehand.

Relevant Vocabulary

Globe: the world

Cadre: particular or specific segment

Outcome: result

Reciprocal: mutual or based on a give and take arrangement:

Summit: meeting involving heads of state (Presidents or Prime Ministers)

LESSON 12

COLONIALISM, NEO-COLONIALISM & IMPERIALISM

Colonialism is a complex concept that encompasses political, legal, economic, cultural, and social aspects, making it difficult to define simply. Historically, the term "colony" referred to Roman settlements outside their city-state in the mid-14th century. By the 19th century, colonialism described European nations' widespread practice of establishing control over other regions. While colonizing states avoided defining it, many scholars have explored its meaning and implications.

Defining Colonialism

Colonialism involves 'alien domination,' where foreign rule is imposed on a people. It is a system where a state claims sovereignty over territories and people outside its borders, often to exploit their resources, labor, and markets. It entails ruling over different races in separate lands by one colonial power and promoting the belief that the colonizer's values and systems are superior. This domination often involves an alien minority asserting racial and cultural superiority over a majority. Hobson describes colonialism, at its best, as the spread of a nation's civilization to new areas, tested by the colonizer's ability to transplant their culture.

Judging Colonization

Defenders of colonialism claim it developed the infrastructure for modernization and democracy, citing examples like Singapore. However, postcolonialists like Franz Fanon argue that colonialism causes political, psychological, and moral harm to the colonized.

The British Empire, at its height in the early 20th century, ruled over 400-500 million people, covering about two-fifths of the world's land. Over 300 years, it expanded through phases of conquest and peaceful trade, spreading British technology, commerce, language, and governance globally. This expansion boosted Britain's economic growth and global influence while it also developed democratic institutions at home.

For the colonies, the British Empire's impact was mixed. They adopted the English language, British administrative and legal systems, and experienced technological and economic development. During decolonization, Britain aimed to establish parliamentary democracies in its former colonies with varying success.

British colonial policy was largely driven by trade interests. Settler economies developed balanced infrastructure, while tropical African territories were exploited for raw materials. The "divide and rule" strategy to prevent unity among the colonized left a legacy of partition and ethnic conflicts, notably in the Subcontinent.

Decolonization

Decolonization, the reversal of colonization, surged after WWII due to nationalism in Latin America, Asia, and Africa, and weakened colonial powers. The UN played a key role, particularly in decolonizing Indonesia and African colonies like Liberia, Somalia, and Eritrea from Italy.

Relevant Vocabulary

- **Elusive:** hard to describe
- **Refrain:** desist or avoid
- **Antithesis:** exact opposite
- **Infrastructure:** established system (of communication for example)
- **Prevalent:** widespread

LESSON 13

COLONIALISM, NEO-COLONIALISM & IMPERIALISM**Definition of Neo-Colonialism**

Neo-colonialism refers to the political and economic control of an independent state by a former colonizer. Dependency theorists like Andre Gunder Frank argue that it causes wealth to flow from the colonized to the colonizer, hindering development. Despite having sovereignty, the affected state's economy and policies are externally controlled. The 1961 All Parties African People's Conference described neo-colonialism as economic infiltration through foreign investments, loans, aid, and long-term unequal concessions.

Why Neo-Colonialism Occurs

After WWII, direct colonization became impractical due to weakness and resentment. Former colonial territories were divided into unviable states, making them reliant on their former colonizers for economic and defense needs. Former colonial powers, needing resources for domestic welfare policies, maintained neo-colonial ties to exploit these dependencies.

Types of Neo-Colonialism

1. Economic Dependencies: Control over a nation's finances allows influence over its political and social institutions.
2. Satellites: Nations have formal independence, but former colonial powers still exert extensive political and economic control, more so than traditional imperial states.

How Neo-Colonization Occurs

Former colonies often become economically dependent on their former colonizers due to capital investments, financial loans, unequal trade, and technological reliance. Military bases also help maintain control.

Critics argue that nations and corporations use economic, financial, and trade policies to dominate weaker countries indirectly. They highlight how international financial institutions like the IMF and World Bank exert control by making loans conditional on policies that benefit lenders but harm the borrower's economy, worsening poverty.

Critics also claim that multinational investments benefit only a few in underdeveloped countries, causing humanitarian and environmental damage, perpetuating underdevelopment, and keeping these countries as sources of cheap labor and raw materials. However, opponents of this view argue that developed countries' use of cheap labor and materials ultimately promotes development in the Third World.

Relevant Vocabulary

Ecological: concerning the natural environment

Reservoir: stored amount

Inhabit: to populate or live in

Humanitarian: charitable or compassionate

LESSON 14

COLONIALISM, NEO-COLONIALISM & IMPERIALISM**What is Imperialism?**

Imperialism involves extending a government's rule beyond its original borders, using military or economic means to control another political entity. This can involve direct control of territories or indirect influence over politics and economies.

Imperialists believe that acquiring and maintaining empires is beneficial, often assuming their cultural superiority. However, imperialism is also seen as exploitative.

Marxists, following Lenin, view imperialism as the "highest stage of capitalism," where monopolistic finance capital dominates and empires compete for global resources and markets through geopolitical, military, or financial strategies. Unlike later Marxists, Marx did not develop a theory of imperialism and saw European colonialism as having some progressive aspects.

Objectives of Imperialism

- **Economic Gain:** Secure raw materials and access trade routes or the sea.
- **National Prestige:** Portrayed as 'manifest destiny' or inherent superiority.
- **Military Needs:** Control strategic areas for defense.
- **Surplus Population:** Relieve overpopulation through migration to colonies.
- **'White Man's Burden':** Belief in a duty to civilize other peoples.
- **Marxist-Leninist View:** Driven by the need to control markets for surplus production and investment; Communists also practiced imperialism.

Examples of Imperialism

- **US Imperialism:** Through the Monroe Doctrine (1823), the US controlled Latin America, ostensibly to protect it from European interference.
- **Russian Imperialism:** Initially focused on nearby territories, but during the Cold War, it expanded into Asia, Africa, and South America, filling the void left by declining European colonial powers.
- **Japanese Imperialism:** As Japan industrialized and militarized before WWII, it annexed parts of Korea and China. Post-WWII, Japan's imperial influence has been primarily economic.

LESSON 15

NEW INTERNATIONAL ECONOMIC ORDER

Changing Economic Circumstances

Since WWII, the world economy has changed significantly due to political shifts, industrial and technological advances, and evolving trade patterns. The dominant economic order for the four decades post-WWII is known as the IEO.

IEO Subsystems

- **North-West System:** Financial and trade connections among Western Europe, Japan, and North America.
- **North-East System:** Centrally controlled economies of the Soviet Union and Eastern Europe.
- **South System:** Developing countries in Africa, Asia, and Latin America.

Criticism of IEO

Nationalistic economics faced heavy criticism. It failed in the North-East, leading to the USSR's collapse. Neo-colonial and imperialistic trade practices caused global disparities. Despite financial aid from the North-West to the South, poverty remained widespread. Many in developing countries and even within developed nations called for revising the IEO.

NIEO

In response to global economic disparities, Southern countries proposed the NIEO, aiming for equitable and sustainable economic growth. The UN's Sixth Special Session in 1974 declared the establishment of the NIEO, addressing inequalities and injustices between developed and developing nations.

The NIEO aimed to correct injustices by promoting equity, cooperation, and interdependence among all states. The UN proposed immediate actions to make this new order a reality.

However, industrialized countries, feeling threatened, opposed the NIEO. Henry Kissinger led efforts to undermine it, fearing a shift in global power dynamics. Despite initial sympathy, Western leaders resisted NIEO's demands for technology transfer and interest-free investment, challenging existing financial institutions' structures.

NIEO summits have convened to discuss and advocate for these principles.

NIEO Activities

- **Cancun Summit (1981):** The US insisted on Western states' participation alongside developing countries using the UN mechanism.
- **Melbourne Summit:** Organized by the Commonwealth to address NIEO issues in the South.
- **New Delhi Summit:** North-South meeting addressing demands for reduced tariff liberalization, higher commodity prices, and more aid for development.
- **Subsequent UN Events:** Events like the WSSD continued to advocate for the NIEO.

LESSON 16

NEW INTERNATIONAL ECONOMIC ORDER**How NIEO Could Be Achieved?**

To achieve NIEO, trade terms must be revised, agricultural subsidies removed, and technology transferred from developed to developing nations. Untied development aid, free from political motives, could aid economic growth.

Additionally, giving more decision-making power to developing nations in international financial institutions like the World Bank, IMF, Asian Development Bank, and the WTO could promote fairer development.

NIEO & the Islamic World

With over a billion people and significant energy reserves, the Muslim world still struggles with poverty and disparities. Embracing the NIEO could bring substantial benefits.

The Muslim world, with its population, resources, and institutions like SAARC, ECO, and OIC, could effectively champion the egalitarian principles of the NIEO.

NIEO Constraints and Challenges

NIEO lacks sufficient focus on environmental concerns, crucial for sustainable growth. Achieving NIEO requires significant shifts in global power dynamics, with political implications. Economic development doesn't always guarantee human development.

The Third World's vision of NIEO emphasizes self-reliant industrial economies, with strong state intervention to ensure complete industrial processes and access to international markets. However, multinational corporations resist this, favoring partial relocation under their control.

Most Third World states compromise, seeking turnkey factories within their industrialization policies. They aim for collective strength through North-South negotiations and cartels for price revisions on raw materials.

Oil revenue surpluses were expected to support NIEO, but were often used to perpetuate unjust systems. While there was initial hope for Third World solidarity, pressure from developed countries led to a shift towards stabilization funds over collective interventions.

Economic Possibilities for the Future

Current economic growth patterns are widening the gap between the rich and poor, leading to increased impoverishment globally. The limits of growth will exacerbate this issue further.

To address this, there must be a fundamental shift in values and corresponding structural changes. These changes should ensure that economic growth benefits everyone, not just the already wealthy.

Prerequisites for the NIEO

Political Development: Good governance is essential for economic efficiency and redistribution.

Equitable Economic Development: Achieving growth without widening internal disparities is challenging.

Social Development: Meeting basic human needs and providing equal opportunities for all.

Environmental Sustainability: Ensuring growth occurs in a manner that doesn't harm the natural environment.

Relevant Vocabulary

Latent: hidden, undeveloped or dormant

Disparities: differences

Egalitarian: equal, open, democratic

Surplus: extra or in excess

LESSON 17

NON-ALIGNMENT MOVEMENT**What is Non-Alignment?**

Non-alignment is often confused with terms like isolationism, non-commitment, neutrality, or non-involvement, but these are not interchangeable. Isolationism means aloofness; non-commitment means detachment in general international relations; and non-involvement means staying out of tensions between power blocs. Political neutrality is the closest to non-alignment, but while neutrality implies a specific context, non-alignment refers to a broader and ongoing international stance.

Non-Alignment's Implications

Non-alignment means avoiding alliances, especially military pacts. It involves active participation in the fight against imperialism and colonialism, aiming to be dynamic and constructive rather than passive and negative.

Origin of NAM

The Non-Aligned Movement (NAM) originated in 1955, founded by leaders like Tito (Yugoslavia), Nehru (India), Nasser (Egypt), and Sukarno (Indonesia). It began with the Asia-Africa Conference in Bandung, Indonesia, where 29 countries, mostly former colonies, discussed shared concerns and policies. NAM now has 115 members representing developing countries, focusing on resisting major power pressures, maintaining independence, and opposing colonialism and neo-colonialism.

NAM Membership Criteria:

1. Independent policy favoring coexistence of diverse political and social systems and non-alignment.
2. Consistent support for national independence movements.
3. Not a member of a multilateral military alliance related to Great Power conflicts.
4. Any bilateral military agreements or regional defense pacts with Great Powers should not be related to Great Power conflicts.
5. Military bases granted to foreign powers should not be in the context of Great Power conflicts.

Reasons for NAM's Growth:

- A. Strong nationalism among newly independent Asian, African, and Latin American countries.
- B. Anti-colonial sentiment led these countries to counter former colonial powers' influence.
- C. Desire for economic development over involvement in Cold War tensions.
- D. Visionary leadership united nationalists from developing nations.
- E. The UN provided a platform for newly independent countries to voice their concerns collectively.

NAM's Objectives

- Formulation of independent foreign policies
- Economic development by avoiding conflict and military build-ups
- Resistance to neo-colonialism and imperialism
- Strive for world peace by opposing war and nuclear armament
- Focus domestically on development and social welfare

NAM's Institutional Structure

- Standing Committee: Composed of 7 member countries, elected based on geographic distribution, rotating annually. It prepares for the yearly ministerial meeting held before the UN General Assembly session.
- Coordinating Bureau: Established at the 1973 Algiers Summit, it includes 17 member states. It monitors the implementation of decisions and programs between Summits.
- Council of Ministers: Consists of the foreign ministers of member states.
- Council of Heads: Includes the heads of state of all NAM member countries.
- News Pool: Established in 1975 to facilitate information dissemination among member states.

Relevant Vocabulary

Formulation: To formulate or design a policy or an organizational structure

Welfare: Well being

Embroided: Get involved in Bilateral: involving two parties

LESSON 18

NON-ALIGNMENT MOVEMENT (CONTINUED)

NAM Conferences

Belgrade Summit, Yugoslavia (1961): 26 nations supported freedom struggles in Algeria, Tunisia, Angola, and the Congo.

Cairo Summit, Egypt (1964): 47 nations emphasized disarmament and non-interference.

Lusaka Summit, Zambia (1970): 54 nations broke ties with Portugal and South Africa, and called for Israel to withdraw from Palestine.

Algiers Summit, Algeria (1973): 76 nations stressed economic cooperation among developing countries.

Colombo Summit, Sri Lanka (1976): 86 nations sought new trade flows for equitable prosperity.

Havana Summit, Cuba (1979): 94 nations debated aligning with the socialist bloc vs. the West; condemned Egypt and Israel without expelling them.

New Delhi Summit, India (1983): 99 nations urged nuclear restraint and depoliticizing food aid.

Harare Summit, Zimbabwe (1986): 101 nations stressed support for frontline African states and pressuring South Africa to end apartheid.

Belgrade Summit, Yugoslavia (1989): 102 nations called for fair elections in Namibia and resolution in Palestine and Afghanistan.

Jakarta Summit, Indonesia (1992): 108 nations debated ties with the West vs. confronting US hegemony, with calls for NAM to act like a Trade Union of developing nations.

Cartagena Summit, Colombia (1995): Recognized need to reorient NAM objectives in the new world order; focused on the Kashmir insurgency.

Havana Summit, Cuba (2000): 135 nations focused on South-South cooperation and better trade terms to eradicate poverty; rejected India's proposal to suspend countries with military rule.

Kuala Lumpur Summit, Malaysia (2003): 114 nations focused on revitalizing NAM to address global issues.

Relevant Vocabulary

Apartheid: racial segregation

Discrimination: unfair difference in attitude

Reorientation: redirection

Hegemony: exertion of domination Revitalization: reinvigoration or revival

LESSON 19**NON-ALIGNMENT MOVEMENT (CONTINUED FROM LECTURE 18)****NAM's Role in International Relations**

NAM contributed to supporting OPEC price rises, forming the United Nations Conference on Trade and Development, creating the Group of 77, and advocating for the New International Economic Order. Although it has grown and has potential influence, NAM has struggled to achieve its goals and is often seen as ineffective. Many member states do not actively use NAM to resolve disputes or enhance its effectiveness. Despite this, the need for peaceful coexistence and improved North-South relations makes NAM's idealistic yet realistic vision increasingly important.

Criticism of NAM

NAM has failed to promote peace, with many members involved in internal and external conflicts, such as the civil war in Cambodia and the Iran-Iraq war. It has also been ineffective in resolving ongoing disputes like the Middle East conflict, the Kashmir issue between Pakistan and India, and the Cyprus dispute between Turkey and Greece. Additionally, there is a gap between what NAM leaders advocate and what they practice, often taking positions in the UN that differ from NAM consensus.

NAM and Pakistan

Initially, Pakistan couldn't join NAM due to its membership in CENTO and SEATO. By the 1970s, recognizing the need for a broader international approach, Pakistan withdrew from CENTO in 1972. India opposed Pakistan's NAM membership, mirroring Pakistan's opposition to India's entry into the OIC. After CENTO dissolved in 1979, Pakistan joined NAM at the Havana Summit and has participated in all subsequent summits. As the only declared Muslim nuclear state, Pakistan can play a significant role in NAM, advocating for respectful coexistence in a globalized world.

LESSON 20

THE COLD WAR AND ITS IMPACTS - INTRODUCING THE COLD WAR PHENOMENON**What does the Cold War refer to?**

The Cold War was a period of geopolitical tension between the end of WWII and the fall of the Soviet Union, significantly impacting global politics and international relations.

Implications of the Cold War

The Cold War was marked by intense hostility and confrontation between the US and the USSR without direct conflict. It led to an arms race, proxy wars, and ideological competition, forming Eastern (Communist) and Western (Capitalist) blocs. The US accused the USSR of spreading communism, while the Soviets claimed the US was imperialistic. The Cold War heightened the risk of nuclear war and fueled conflicts like the Korean War, Vietnam War, and Soviet invasion of Afghanistan. Germany, especially Berlin, was a major hotspot, symbolized by the Berlin Wall, separating West Berlin from Soviet-supported East Germany.

Formation of Power Blocks

During the Cold War, two main power blocs emerged: The Eastern bloc, led by the Soviet Union and composed of communist nations, united under the Warsaw Pact; and the Western bloc, led by the United States, comprised of capitalist nations, which formed NATO.

Communist Ideology and Practice

Communism, rooted in Marx's philosophy, advocates for collective ownership of resources to empower the Proletariat. However, in practice, it often led to single-party dominance and centralized control, with the bureaucratic class replacing the bourgeoisie.

Capitalist Ideology and Practice

Capitalism champions individual freedom and private property rights, along with democratic governance and press freedom. However, it has been criticized for fostering inequalities and debates over the state's role in economic management.

Relevant Vocabulary

Centralized: controls resting with the central government instead of with regional authorities

Proletariat: the working class

Bourgeoisie: the elite

Empowering: the process of enabling a given segment of people the capacity to yield more political and economic power

Superpower: very powerful state, like the US in the current world politics circumstances

LESSON 21

THE COLD WAR AND ITS IMPACTS (CONTINUED)**Cold War in Europe**

The October Revolution of 1917 introduced Communism in Europe. The Soviet Union's ambitions were initially curbed by the rise of fascism in Italy and Germany. During WWII, the Soviets joined France, Britain, and the US to fight the fascists. However, post-WWII tensions arose over war spoils, with the Soviets reluctant to grant Poland independence and vacate Eastern Germany. Communism spread to Poland and East Germany.

The Cold War escalated as the Soviets installed Communist regimes in Bulgaria, Hungary, and Romania, followed by Albania, Yugoslavia, Czechoslovakia, and a Communist-dominated coalition government in Finland. Europe became divided into the Soviet-controlled Eastern bloc and the US-backed Western bloc. The conflict in Greece between the government and Communist guerillas marked a shift in US foreign policy, with President Truman committing to counter Soviet influence and protect US interests abroad.

Truman Doctrine

The Truman Doctrine aimed to counter the spread of Communism following Britain's decline in power. It provided direct aid to Greece and Turkey to curb Communist influence, bypassing the UN—a pattern seen in future US actions.

Marshal Plan

The Marshall Plan, named after the US Secretary of Defense, extended the Truman Doctrine to prevent economic collapse and Communist domination in Western Europe. It provided aid for reconstructing war-torn Europe and later served as a model for development lending to newly independent countries in Africa, Asia, and Latin America.

Expansion of the Cold War Arena

The Cold War expanded as communism spread to China with Soviet support, leading to the exile of Chiang Kai-shek's government to Taiwan. Communist China backed North Korea, while the US supported South Korea. In Vietnam, Soviet and Chinese support for the North led to significant US involvement, fearing the spread of communism to neighboring countries. Despite deploying 600,000 troops, the US failed to prevent a communist victory.

In the Middle East, the US backed Israel while Soviet influence remained limited. In Latin America, Soviet ties with Cuba and Nicaragua alarmed the US, prompting support for regimes like Pinochet's in Chile. In Africa, Soviet aid to Congo, Ghana, and the Gold Coast led to US countermeasures. South Asia saw India leaning towards the Soviets, Pakistan towards the US, and Afghanistan becoming a key Cold War battleground.

Relevant Vocabulary

Exiled: expelled, being thrown out of a country

Regime: government

Counter measures: measures taken in reaction to those of the opponent

Fascist: totalitarian, dictatorial (for e.g. Italy and Germany around the WWII period)

Bypass: to sideline or ignore

LESSON 22

THE COLD WAR AND ITS IMPACTS (CONTINUED)**Reconciliation**

During the Cold War, efforts to avoid a catastrophic conflict included disarmament talks and treaties. Khrushchev and Eisenhower met at Camp David, initiating this trend. Key agreements included the Partial Test Ban Treaty (PTBT) in 1962, the establishment of a direct hotline between leaders in 1963, and the Non-Proliferation Treaty (NPT) in 1968. From 1969 to 1978, a period of détente saw both sides accept the status quo due to the mutually assured destruction (MAD) doctrine and the high costs of nuclear arsenals. Nixon's visit to the USSR resulted in treaties limiting anti-ballistic missile systems and strategic offensive arms. Strategic Arms Limitation Talks continued from 1969 to 1979, with agreements such as the Seabed Treaty, which banned nuclear launch sites on the ocean floor.

End of the Cold War

The Cold War began to wind down in the late 1980s, culminating in the Malta Summit between President Bush and Mikhail Gorbachev in 1989. The Washington Summit in 1990 further solidified this process with several agreements on reducing nuclear, chemical, and conventional arms.

Resurgence of tensions

The Cold War saw a resurgence of tensions with the Soviet invasion of Afghanistan in 1979 and their interference in Angola. The new U.S. administration opposed these actions and sought to build ties with China, ending the détente period. President Jimmy Carter criticized Soviet-backed regimes on human rights grounds, leading to the discovery of a Soviet brigade in Cuba, the U.S. withdrawal from SALT II, the boycott of the 1980 Moscow Olympics, and a grain embargo on the USSR.

In response, the Soviets boycotted the 1984 Los Angeles Olympics, shot down a South Korean airliner, and withdrew from arms talks with the U.S. after Western European countries deployed Cruise and Pershing 2 missiles. The U.S. secured bases in Oman, Kenya, and Somalia to protect interests in the Persian Gulf and Indian Ocean, while accusing the Soviets, Cubans, Nicaraguans, and Ethiopians of arming insurgents in El Salvador.

The Cold War effectively ended with the fall of the Berlin Wall in 1989. The formal end came at the London Summit, which led to the reduction of U.S. nuclear weapons in Europe, withdrawal of Soviet troops from Central and Eastern Europe, and a redefined NATO role focused on peacekeeping.

The World after the Cold War

After the Cold War, global power dynamics shifted. Afghanistan felt abandoned by the U.S., and the Soviet Union's collapse led to new states and government changes, like in Yugoslavia. Conflicts in Korea, Vietnam, and Germany ended quickly without superpower interference.

A new world order emerged, marked by multilateralism and U.S. dominance. This required a new focus in international relations. The fall of communism boosted the legitimacy of market economies. Under communism, a single political party and centralized decision-making created a new bureaucratic elite.

The Capitalist Ideology

Capitalism values individual liberty and private property. Politically, it supports democratic government, multiparty politics, judicial independence, and press freedom. However, it has led to issues like minority discrimination, growing inequality, and debates about the state's economic role.

Relevant Vocabulary

Reconciliation: removal of differences or tensions between states

Conventional weapons: normal as opposed to nuclear

Accuse: to blame

Bourgeoisie: the rich and powerful elite

LESSON 23

DISARMAMENT AND ARMS CONTROL**Justifications for Armament**

Weapons result from, rather than cause, conflicts. Historically, arms races often end peacefully with one side recognizing the other's military superiority. Inadequate defense can invite aggression, so preparing for war is seen as a means to maintain peace.

Arguments for disarmament

Arms races are expensive and can lead to bloody conflicts. Disarmament can reduce defense costs and free up resources for economic development. Unchecked armament growth can result in internal repression and external aggression.

Arms Controls

Arms control involves reducing weapons based on mutual agreements between nations. It includes international accords to limit war impacts and prevent accidental conflicts, such as information exchanges to avoid misunderstandings and bans on specific types of weaponry.

History of Disarmament

Disarmament efforts date back to the Treaty of Westphalia in 1648. In 1816, the Russian Czar proposed reducing armaments to Britain, which was ignored. France made similar unsuccessful calls in 1863 and 1869. In 1898, the Russian Tsar's call for disarmament led to the First Hague Peace Conference with 28 states. A second conference in 1907 also aimed at reducing military expenditures, but major powers were not ready for such measures.

Disarmament after WWI

After WWI, the devastation prompted a push for disarmament. Woodrow Wilson advocated for reducing armaments to ensure domestic safety. The Treaty of Versailles (1919) acknowledged the need for armament reduction for peace. The League of Nations was tasked with securing a disarmament agreement. However, progress was slow, with commissions failing to reach consensus. The League's Temporary Mixed Commission proposed limitations on land and naval forces and compulsory arbitration, but its recommendations were not accepted. Further efforts in 1926 and 1932 were hindered by events like the Japanese attack on Manchuria and Germany's withdrawal from the treaty in 1933, halting hopes for disarmament.

Relevant Vocabulary

Conflictive: conflicting or tense

Armament: the process of acquiring weaponry

Impelled: compelled, obligated **Arbitration:** resolution of disputes **Fortifications:** building up of defenses

